Light-sharing control for tracker-based agrivoltaics under a yield floor: what learning adds and what shade-response uncertainty costs

Quang-Vinh Dang*

British University Vietnam, Hung Yen, Vietnam

Abstract

Context: Agrivoltaic trackers can rotate to let light through to the crop (light sharing); its value under a yield floor, and what learning adds, are unclear. **Objective:** To quantify light sharing under a 90% retention floor, test what learning adds and measure the cost of shade-response uncertainty. **Methods:** A differentiable simulator of tracker, PV, light, microclimate and crop growth was applied to 400 crop–site pairs under four climates, with densities chosen from each site's history and evaluation on held-out sites and years. **Results:** Light-sharing rules allowed arrays 2.1–2.9 times as dense as static arrays and raised the land-equivalent ratio (LER) from 1.07 to 1.18–1.24. A neural controller exceeded the written phenology rule by 0.044 LER but an optimised window by only 0.007 (95% interval 0.002–0.014), and by 0.003 at matched retention (not distinguishable from zero). A model fitted to 428 observations predicted a new study no better than proportional loss (error 0.22). A density chosen under the mean response left about 70% of pairs at the floor when another plausible response held, against 87% for an oracle; conformal margins attained a stated compliance inside the ensemble, a learned design network did no better than a simple margin, and neither was safe outside it. With illustrative costs, light sharing breaks even with the open field at 70–92 USD MWh^{-1}. **Conclusions:** Light sharing by rule is the main lever; the uncertainty of the crop response, not the learner, limits what can be guaranteed.

Keywords: Agrivoltaics, Light sharing, Solar tracking, Crop modelling, Differentiable simulation, Decision under uncertainty, Food–energy nexus

*Corresponding author.

Email address: vinh.dq4@buv.edu.vn (Quang-Vinh Dang)

1. Introduction

Food production and the energy transition compete for the same land. Terawatts of new solar photovoltaic (PV) capacity are needed, ground-mounted solar farms occupy one to two hectares per megawatt, and croplands are where solar potential is greatest (Adeh et al., 2019). At the same time, warming is projected to reduce yields of maize, wheat, rice and soybean by several per cent per degree (Zhao et al., 2017; IPCC, 2021). Agrivoltaic (AV) systems, which put crops and PV modules on the same land, aim to resolve this conflict (Dupraz et al., 2011; Dinesh and Pearce, 2016). By sharing sunlight between modules and plants, a hectare can deliver more food plus energy than the two uses side by side, with land-equivalent ratios (LER) above one in field trials and models (Amaducci et al., 2018; Valle et al., 2017; Trommsdorff et al., 2021), and the partial shade can lower canopy temperature and conserve soil water (Marrou et al., 2013; Hassanpour Adeh et al., 2018; Weselek et al., 2021). The same shade also reduces the light available for photosynthesis, and regulators increasingly require AV systems to retain most of the reference yield; the German pre-standard DIN SPEC 91434 sets a floor of 66% (DIN, 2021), and other schemes and farmers set stricter ones. How much electricity an AV system can produce under such a yield floor depends on the crop, the climate, the year and the growth stage.

Most AV designs fix the array geometry, the ground coverage ratio (GCR, module area per ground area), from rules of thumb. Single-axis trackers add a degree of freedom: modules can be rotated away from the sun to let light through when the crop needs it (Valle et al., 2017), or towards the sun to maximise electricity. We call the daily choice between the two *light sharing*. It is a sequential decision problem, because the value of light depends on the crop stage, soil water and weather, and the consequence appears at harvest. Machine learning for crop management has mostly used reinforcement learning with black-box simulators (Gautron et al., 2022), which would need very many simulated seasons for global multi-decadal assessments. Differentiable process models, which fit parameters and policies by gradient descent through a simulator (Reichstein et al., 2019; Shen et al., 2023), are an alternative. A second difficulty is uncertainty about the crop response to shade, the weakest part of any AV model, which calls for designs that perform acceptably across plausible models and not only under the best estimate (Marchau et al., 2019).

This paper asks three questions of a global set of agricultural systems. How much of the electricity that an AV system can produce under a yield

floor comes from array density, and how much from dynamic light-sharing control of trackers? Does a controller learned through a differentiable simulator add anything to a well-designed hand-written rule? And how much does uncertainty about the shade response cost, and can learning help to manage it? To answer them we built a differentiable simulator that couples hourly solar geometry, tracker and PV physics, light and microclimate under the modules, and the SIMPLE crop model (Zhao et al., 2019) extended with a flowering-stage shade penalty. We trained a neural controller (SALS) through it, and compared it with static arrays and with rules, in a protocol in which the array density of every site is chosen from its own history only and performance is measured on geographically held-out sites and years. The shade response was learned from the open data of a meta-analysis (Laub et al., 2022), checked against field trials (Gonocruz et al., 2021; Weselek et al., 2021; Ramos-Fuentes et al., 2023), and propagated as an ensemble of plausible responses. We applied the protocol to 400 crop–site pairs sampled in proportion to the harvested area of the five crops (Yu et al., 2020), with NASA POWER weather for 2001–2019 (Sparks, 2018) under baseline and $+1.5$, $+2$ and $+3\,^{\circ}\mathrm{C}$ climates. The main findings are as follows.

1. Light sharing, by rule and not by learning, is the main lever on electricity at a given floor: arrays carry 2.1 to 2.9 times the module area of static arrays at the same mean retention of 90%, but economically it pays only at high electricity prices.
2. A learned controller adds 0.044 LER over the written phenology rule but only 0.007 over a window optimised on the training seasons, and nothing that can be distinguished from zero at matched retention.
3. The shade response is only partly learnable: a hierarchical model fitted to 428 observations predicts a new study to about 0.22 in relative yield, no better than proportional loss for the four staple crop types. The simulator is milder than the data for maize.
4. Compliance with the floor is sensitive to the response assumed in the design. A density chosen under the mean response leaves about 70% of pairs at the floor when another plausible response holds. A conformal margin attains a stated compliance inside the ensemble, and a neural design policy does no better than a simple margin; neither is safe outside the ensemble.
5. With illustrative costs, light sharing breaks even with the open field at 70 to $92\,\mathrm{USD\,MWh^{-1}}$, and agrivoltaics on 5% of the world's staple

cropland could supply about 14 PWh yr^{-1} only with about 10 TWp of modules.

2. Materials and methods

The full description, with all equations, parameters and training details, is in the Supplementary Material (Section S1); this section gives what is needed to follow the results.

2.1. Sites, weather and scenarios

We studied five staple crops (wheat, rice, maize, soybean, potato; about 670 Mha of harvested area). Harvested areas came from SPAM 2010 (Yu et al., 2020). For each crop, 80 one-degree cells with at least 5000 ha were drawn with probability proportional to harvested area, so that an unweighted mean over the 400 crop–site pairs approximates an area-weighted global mean (Fig. 1). Sowing and maturity dates came from the GGCMI Phase 3 crop calendar (Jägermeyr et al., 2021) and daily weather for 2001–2020 from NASA POWER (Sparks, 2018). Each site contributes 19 seasons (7600 site-seasons), each simulated for the 365 days after sowing. Warming levels of +1.5, +2 and +3 °C were imposed by shifting daily temperatures uniformly, with CO_2 of 450, 500 and 600 ppm (390 ppm in the baseline); precipitation and irradiance were unchanged.

2.2. A differentiable agrivoltaic simulator

The simulator (Fig. 3) advances all site-seasons in parallel, with a daily step for the crop and an hourly step for radiation and PV, in PyTorch (Paszke et al., 2019), so that yield and electricity are differentiable with respect to design and control variables. We considered elevated horizontal single-axis trackers with north–south axes, an axis height of 1.25 module widths, a rotation limit of ±60° and $g \leq 0.5$. With backtracking rotation ϕ_{bt} (Lorenzo et al., 2011; Marion and Dobos, 2013) and the rotation ϕ_{sh} that minimises the shadow on the crop, a daily *light-sharing level* $u \in [0, 1]$ sets the hourly rotation as

$$\phi = (1 - u)\,\phi_{\mathrm{bt}} + u\,\phi_{\mathrm{sh}}. \tag{1}$$

Plane-of-array irradiance combines beam light reduced by row-to-row shading, isotropic sky diffuse and ground-reflected light; electricity follows from module efficiency (0.21), the NOCT cell temperature and 14% system losses,

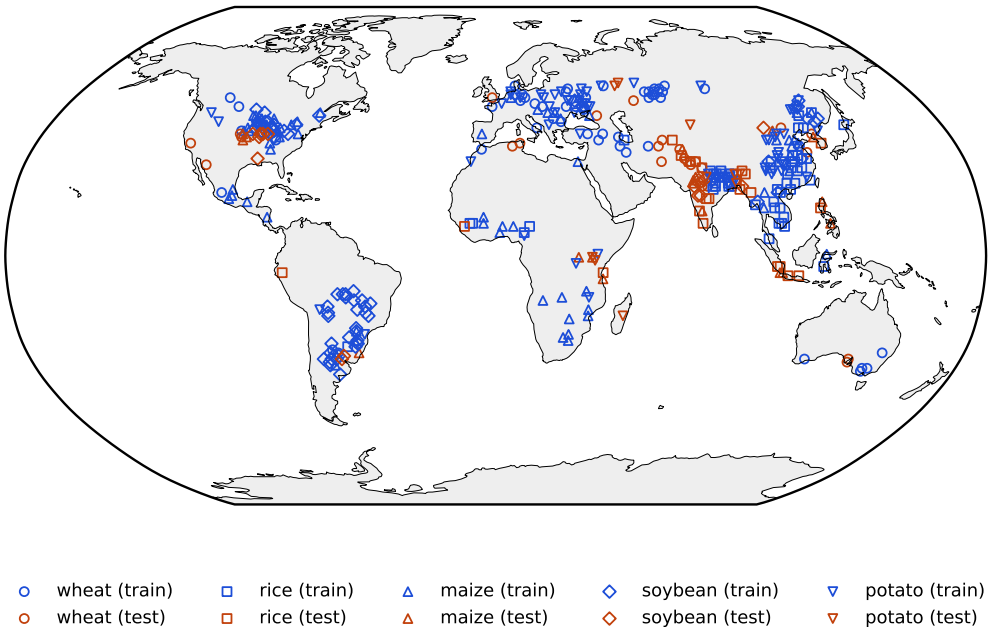


Figure 1: The 400 crop–site pairs, sampled in proportion to the harvested area of each crop (SPAM 2010). Blue: training sites; orange: geographically held-out test sites of the main split.

and a conventional ground-mounted plant ($g = 0.4$) is the energy reference E_{PV}. Beam and diffuse light at the crop follow from the geometry (the diffuse part from a pre-computed two-dimensional sky-view factor), and the canopy maximum temperature is lowered by $\kappa(1 - s)$ with s the share of open-field irradiance that reaches the crop and a moderate $\kappa = 1\,^{\circ}\mathrm{C}$ (sensitivity: $\kappa = 0$ and $2\,^{\circ}\mathrm{C}$). Reference evapotranspiration is recomputed under the modules (Allen et al., 1998). Crop growth follows SIMPLE (Zhao et al., 2019),

$$\Delta B = R_{\mathrm{crop}} \cdot \mathrm{RUE} \cdot f_{\mathrm{Solar}} \cdot f_{\mathrm{CO_2}} \cdot f_{\mathrm{Temp}} \cdot \min\{f_{\mathrm{Heat}}, f_{\mathrm{Water}}\}, \tag{2}$$

with $R_{\mathrm{crop}} = sR$ the radiation at the crop, a soil-water balance for drought stress, a thermal-time requirement calibrated per site from the crop calendar, and each site split into a rainfed and an irrigated sub-field. SIMPLE has a fixed harvest index, so we added a penalty for shade around flowering: in the window $0.45 \le \mathrm{TT}/T_{\mathrm{sum}} \le 0.65$ the harvest index is multiplied by $1 - h\bar{d}$, with $\bar{d}$ the mean radiation deficit and a sensitivity h of 0.6 for maize, 0.5

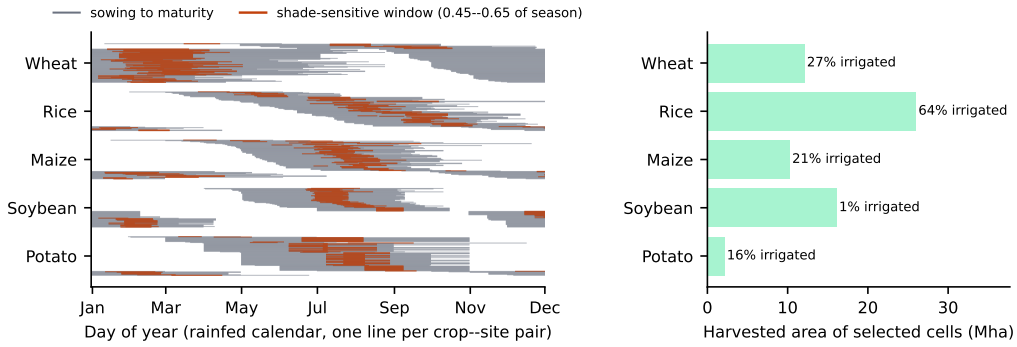


Figure 2: Agronomic data behind the simulations. Left: crop calendar of the 400 crop–site pairs (GGCMI Phase 3 sowing and maturity, one line per pair); the red part marks the window of 0.45 to 0.65 of the season in which the crop model penalises shade through the harvest index. Right: harvested area of the selected cells (SPAM 2010) and its irrigated share.

for soybean and rice, 0.4 for wheat and 0.2 for potato (assumptions that reproduce the ranking of crop types in the data). The PV part agrees with PVGIS at low density ($r = 0.97$ at 29 sites, simulator 4.9% lower) and was compared with pvlib (Holmgren et al., 2018) at higher density (Section 3.3).

2.3. Light-sharing control, design and baselines

SALS is a multilayer perceptron (two hidden layers of 64 units) that sets u each day from the crop and soil state, noisy forecasts of maximum temperature, irradiance and ET_0 (errors of 2 °C, 20% and 15%), the irrigation status, the density, the latitude, the day of season and the crop. It is trained by back-propagation through the 365 daily steps of the simulator to minimise $-e + \mu_1 \max\{0, \rho - r\} + \mu_2 \max\{0, \rho - r\}^2$ with r the yield retention, e the electricity relative to a conventional plant and $\rho = 0.9$, after behaviour cloning of the phenology rule (trained from random weights it converges to the seasonal-sharing rule). Its gain over the phenology rule therefore measures what fine-tuning through the simulator adds to that rule.

Every method uses the same *history-based design rule*: the density of a site is the largest value on the grid (step 0.05) for which the mean retention over its 2001–2014 seasons is at least 0.9; if none qualifies, the site stays open field. Test seasons (2015–2019) are never used for design, and test sites never for training. We compare static arrays (backtracking, $u = 0$), seasonal sharing ($u = 1$ throughout the season), a stress rule (sharing except

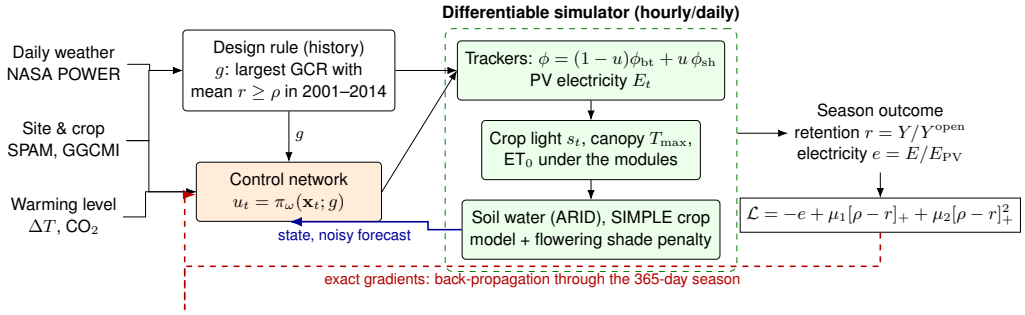


Figure 3: Structure of the simulator. Daily weather and the light-sharing level u determine the tracker rotation, PV electricity, the light and temperature at the crop and the crop state; yield retention and electricity relative to a conventional plant enter the objective.

on forecast heat or drought days), a written phenology rule (sharing for $0.05 \leq \mathrm{TT}/T_{\mathrm{sum}} \leq 1$), a window tuned on the training seasons of each split (grid-tuned and CMA-ES optimised (Hansen and Ostermeier, 2001); Supplementary Material) and SALS, with a conventional plant and the open field as references.

2.4. Shade response: data, ensembles and design under uncertainty

The crop response to shade was learned from 428 observations of 58 studies (Laub et al., 2022) as $y(s) = \exp(-\beta s^{\gamma})$ with partial pooling over crop types and compared by leave-one-study-out cross-validation with proportional loss $y = 1 - s$ and with gradient-boosted trees. The simulator has two shade parameters per crop, a radiation-use compensation and a multiplier on the harvest-index penalty. Because the simulator is differentiable, they were fitted by gradient descent through whole seasons to the learned curves (20% and 40% shading) and to field trials on rice, wheat, potato and maize (Gonocruz et al., 2021; Weselek et al., 2021; Ramos-Fuentes et al., 2023). Repeating the fit on randomly perturbed observations gave an ensemble of plausible responses (E2; a wider ensemble E3 has a target error of 0.2), and the spread of its members (standard deviation of relative yield 0.02–0.06, 0.02–0.15 for E3) is generally smaller than the between-study error of 0.22.

The density under uncertainty is chosen as (i) the *mean-response design*, the design rule under the mean of the members; (ii) a *margin*, the same rule with the floor raised to $d > 0.9$ under the mean response; (iii) an *ensemble rule* that requires the floor in a share of the members; (iv) a *conformal*

margin, the smallest d whose conformal-adjusted risk of missing the floor, $n/(n+1)\,\hat{R}(d) + 1/(n+1)$, is at most a target α (Angelopoulos et al., 2024), calibrated on two splits and tested on the third, globally or per crop; and (v) a *learned design network*, a small multilayer perceptron that chooses a density from the history retention curves of the other members (mean, minimum and maximum at each density), the crop and the latitude, trained to minimise $-\mathrm{LER} + \lambda\,\mathbf{1}[r < 0.9]$ under the held-out member, with leave-one-split-out evaluation. The truth is a held-out member, or one of four fixed responses outside the ensemble (proportional, calibrated, field-fitted and harsh), and an oracle design under the true response is the reference.

2.5. Economics and evaluation

Annual net value per hectare relative to the open field is electricity revenue minus the annuity and operating cost of the installed capacity ($2.1\,g\,\mathrm{MWp\,ha^{-1}}$) minus the lost crop revenue; a conventional plant ($g = 0.4$) replacing the crop is the comparator. All parameters are assumptions (Supplementary Table S9), so we report break-even electricity prices and sensitivities. Sites were split spatially (10° blocks, 70% training, 30% test) with three splits; training used 2001–2014 and evaluation the 2015–2019 seasons of held-out sites, and results are for 92 held-out pairs (main split) or 76 distinct pairs pooled over three splits. Metrics are electricity, mean and production-weighted retention, compliance (share of seasons or sites with retention ≥ 0.9), and the land-equivalent ratio $\mathrm{LER} = r + e$ (Dupraz et al., 2011), relative to the open field of the same climate. Intervals are cluster bootstrap intervals over crop–site pairs; SALS was trained with three seeds per split. For the global estimate, each crop's mean electricity per hectare is scaled to its physical area in SPAM 2010.

3. Results

Further analyses are in the Supplementary Material (Section S2): other warming levels, floors, canopy cooling, forecast errors, layouts, controllers trained on ensembles of responses, and the cross-validation tables of the shade-response model.

3.1. Light sharing under a yield floor

Table 1 compares the controllers on the 92 held-out crop–site pairs of the main split, after the density of each site has been chosen from its 2001–2014

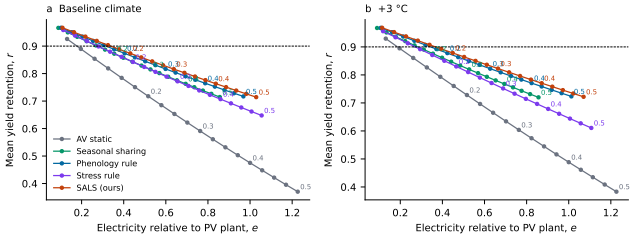


Figure 4: Land-equivalent ratio against ground coverage ratio for the controllers on the 92 held-out pairs: at matched densities, SALS lies on or slightly above the phenology rule, both above seasonal sharing and the stress rule, and static arrays are far below.

seasons with the same rule for all controllers; all methods therefore keep the mean retention close to 90%, and differences in electricity are differences in the density that each controller can sustain. Without light sharing the floor limits ground coverage to 6% and arrays produce 217 MWh ha^{-1} yr^{-1} (LER 1.07). Sharing light during the cropping season allows 17% coverage and 397 MWh ha^{-1} yr^{-1} (LER 1.19), and a written rule that follows crop phenology reaches 465 (LER 1.24). A stress rule that shades the crop on forecast heat or drought days is worse (LER 1.18), because it cannot sustain the density. SALS sustains 17% coverage, produces 510 MWh ha^{-1} yr^{-1} and reaches an LER of 1.270; this is +0.038 over the phenology rule (95% interval over sites 0.025–0.053, higher at 84% of the 92 sites) and +0.205 (0.176–0.236) over static arrays, with 2.35 times the electricity at 2.9 times the density (Fig. 4). The ranking, SALS ahead of the phenology rule, ahead of the stress rule and seasonal sharing, ahead of static arrays, holds in every warming scenario (SALS LER 1.30 at +3 °C), for floors of 0.80 to 0.95 (SALS minus phenology rule 0.033–0.038 LER), for canopy cooling of 0, 1 and 2 °C (0.029, 0.034, 0.042), under larger forecast errors and under alternative layouts (Supplement). Masking the soil-water, aridity and forecast inputs of SALS leaves its LER unchanged (1.269 against 1.270). The price of light sharing is compliance: the floor is met in 69–76% of seasons, against 93% for static arrays.

Benefits differ between crops: soybean and maize tolerate the densest arrays (GCR 0.24 and 0.19; LER 1.41 and 1.30), potato follows (0.19; 1.31), and rice and wheat are the most restrictive (0.13 and 0.15; LER 1.20 for both). The floor is not met evenly. Production-weighted retention is 0.888 for soybean and 0.898 for maize because high-yielding seasons lose more,

Table 1: Held-out performance (92 test pairs, seasons 2015–2019) under the baseline and the +3 °C climate. The density (GCR) of each site is the largest value on a grid with step 0.025 at which the method's mean retention in the site's 2001–2014 seasons is ≥ 0.9. E: electricity (MWh ha^{-1} yr^{-1}); e: electricity relative to a conventional plant; r: mean yield retention; r_{prod}: production-weighted retention; C_s, $\mathrm{C}_{\mathrm{site}}$: share of seasons and of sites with retention ≥ 0.9 (%); LER $= r + e$. Other warming levels are in Supplementary Table S2.

Method	GCR	E	e	r	r_{prod}	C_s	$\mathrm{C}_{\mathrm{site}}$	LER
Baseline								
AV static	0.06	217	0.16	0.917	0.914	93	96	1.07
Seasonal sharing	0.17	397	0.28	0.904	0.902	69	72	1.19
Phenology rule	0.17	465	0.33	0.904	0.902	69	75	1.24
Stress rule	0.13	387	0.28	0.907	0.907	76	82	1.18
SALS	0.17	510	0.36	0.905	0.902	70	74	1.27
+3 °C								
AV static	0.06	231	0.17	0.915	0.914	88	89	1.08
Seasonal sharing	0.17	397	0.29	0.906	0.904	69	75	1.19
Phenology rule	0.18	499	0.36	0.905	0.902	67	72	1.26
Stress rule	0.11	366	0.26	0.908	0.908	74	77	1.17
SALS	0.18	540	0.39	0.907	0.904	68	75	1.30

and regionally it is lowest in Latin America and Oceania (0.862, 95% site-bootstrap interval 0.841–0.897, four sites, GCR 0.41) and Africa and the Middle East (0.894, 0.868–0.908, eight sites), against 0.902 for South Asia (39 sites). Only the first deficit lies outside the interval of South Asia, so the regional comparison is an indication and not a finding.

3.2. What learning adds

The written phenology rule was not tuned, whereas SALS is trained, so we tuned its window on the training seasons of each split, by a grid search and by CMA-ES over a five-parameter schedule. Pooled over three splits and 76 distinct pairs (SALS: mean of three training seeds per split), tuning the window raises LER over the written rule by 0.026 (grid; 95% cluster-bootstrap interval 0.016–0.037) and 0.036 (CMA-ES; 0.023–0.052), and SALS by 0.044 (0.030–0.060) (Table 2). Optimising a window therefore accounts for about 83% of the margin of SALS over the written rule. The optimum is an almost binary window from 0.20 to 0.93 of the season, so a smooth ramp is not needed to reproduce most of what SALS does. SALS exceeds

Table 2: Rules and the learned controller (SALS: mean of three training seeds per split) pooled over the three spatial splits (76 distinct crop–site pairs, every third held-out pair; baseline climate; main shade response; history-based design on a GCR grid with step 0.05, coarser than the 0.025 grid of the main analysis). The grid-tuned window shares light while thermal time lies between 0.15 and 1.0 of the season requirement (best of a 4×3 grid on the training-block seasons of each split, the same on all three; the written rule uses 0.05 to 1.0). The CMA-ES schedule has five parameters (start, end, two ramp widths, level) and was tuned on each split's training block and stopped, at the generation cap, at an almost binary window from 0.20 to 0.93 of the requirement at level 1.00 (see Methods).

Method	GCR	E/E_{PV}	Retention	Seasons ≥ 0.9 (%)	Pairs ≥ 0.9 (%)	LER
AV static	0.059	0.153	0.922	95	96	1.076
Seasonal sharing	0.151	0.249	0.915	84	91	1.164
Stress rule	0.118	0.255	0.918	83	88	1.173
Phenology rule (written)	0.154	0.292	0.916	85	91	1.207
Grid-tuned window	0.161	0.317	0.916	84	89	1.233
CMA-ES optimised window	0.158	0.327	0.916	83	87	1.244
SALS	0.161	0.335	0.916	83	87	1.251

the CMA-ES window by 0.007 LER (0.002–0.014), or 2.4% more electricity at the designed densities; the margin is positive on each split (0.008, 0.009 and 0.005, with the interval of the third including zero) and for each of the three training seeds (0.007, 0.008, 0.007). The design step quantises density to a grid of 0.05, much coarser than this margin, so we also compared the controllers at matched retention, reading LER at a retention of 0.90 off each pair's retention–LER curve: SALS exceeds the CMA-ES window by 0.003 (95% interval -0.0004 to 0.007; 73 pairs whose retention curves bracket 0.90), which is not distinguishable from zero. The source of the remaining margin is not identified: it does not come from soil water, forecasts or aridity, and canopy development and density remain untested. Training SALS on ensembles of shade responses or giving it a farm-measurable biomass signal did not help within our budget (Supplement), and SALS-robust was below SALS even under responses inside its training ensemble, which may point to under-training.

3.3. Validation and the shade response

PV model. The simulated specific yield of an isolated row agrees with PVGIS at 29 sites ($r = 0.971$, simulator 4.9% lower). At higher ground coverage we compared plane-of-array irradiance with pvlib (Holmgren et al., 2018) (infinite sheds, isotropic sky, backtracking, same hourly irradiance, 12 sites): the simulator is 0.4% above pvlib at $g = 0.05$ and 0.7, 1.4, 2.1, 2.6

and 3.0% above at $g = 0.1$ to 0.5, so it underestimates the loss relative to a sparse array (2.8% instead of 4.4% at $g = 0.3$). Correcting the electricity of the arrays and of the reference plant by this ratio raises the LER of light-sharing methods by 0.003–0.004 (0.008 with the squared ratio), leaves the margins of SALS unchanged within 0.0003, raises break-even prices by about 0.8 USD MWh^{-1} and changes no ranking. The comparison is model-to-model and does not test the ground-side light.

Shade response. Fig. 5 shows the observations of the meta-analysis (Laub et al., 2022), the learned curves and the simulator. In leave-one-study-out cross-validation over all 339 shaded observations a hierarchical crop-type model reduces the error from 0.43 (proportional loss) to 0.31, but this gain comes from crop types that the simulator does not represent. For the four staple crop types the learned curves are no better than proportional loss (0.222 against 0.220; difference +0.002, interval −0.023 to +0.030), and gradient-boosted trees are worse. The error of 0.22 is the between-study spread that a design has to cover. The simulator is close to the data for cereals and potato, and conservative against the field trials of rice, wheat and potato (for example rice 0.79 against 0.84 (Gonocruz et al., 2021)), but milder than the meta-analysis for maize (0.75 against 0.42 at 40% shading); for soybean its value (0.48) lies within the interval of the data (0.40, 80% interval 0.34–0.53). One maize trial reports smaller losses still (Sekiyama and Nagashima, 2019), so for maize the direction of the bias is uncertain.

3.4. Design under shade-response uncertainty

Table 3 and Fig. 6 use the ensemble of plausible responses E2 (five members; members differ by 0.02 to 0.06 in relative yield, against the between-study error of 0.22). The truth is a held-out member and the design uses the other members (the numbers of this section come from a re-run of the pipeline and differ by one or two points from the corresponding tables of the Supplement). A density chosen under the mean response leaves 71% of pairs at the floor, against 87% for an oracle design under the true response, which also reaches a higher LER (1.488). Raising the floor used in the design to 0.92 under the mean response gives 89% at 0.066 less LER, 0.94 gives 97%, and 0.96 gives 99%; an ensemble-quantile rule lies on the same frontier as the margin (Supplement), so the ensemble is useful to size a margin and not to replace it. Compliance by crop is uneven (57–79% under the mean response, 81–99% for a fixed margin of 0.92).

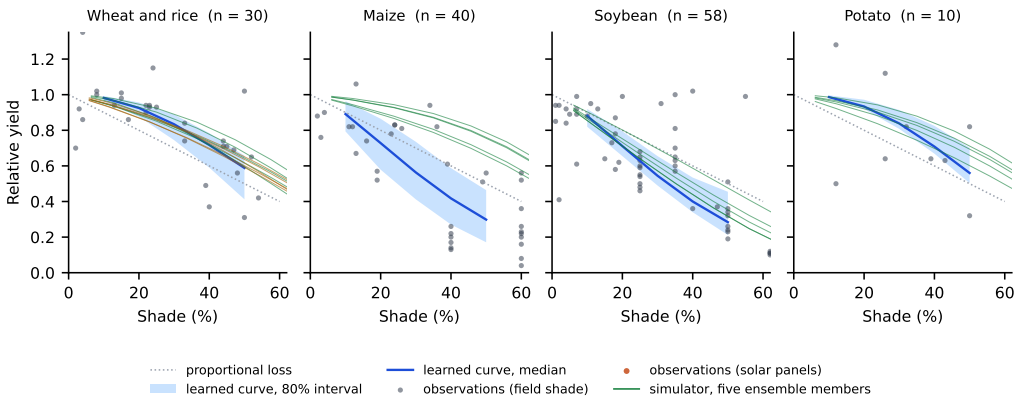


Figure 5: Yield response to shade: observations of the meta-analysis (Laub et al., 2022) (grey: field shade; orange: solar-panel shade), the hierarchical curve learned from them (median and 80% bootstrap interval over studies) and the simulated response of each member of ensemble E2 (green; wheat and rice in green and brown). The curve of C3 cereals stands for rice, which the data set lacks. For maize the simulator is milder than the data.

Conformal margins. Calibrating the margin by conformal risk control (Angelopoulos et al., 2024) on two splits and testing on the third attains the stated compliance in the pooled test splits (92%, 88% and 84% for targets of 90, 85 and 80%), but not on every split: at the 85% target split 0 reached 82.5%, at the 80% target 76.9%, because the splits are different geographical blocks and exchangeability holds only approximately. Margins calibrated per crop equalise compliance across crops (maize 93% and potato 92% against 87% and 85% for a single margin at the 90% target) without moving the frontier. *Learned design.* A neural network that chooses the density from the retention curves of the other members does not improve on the margin: between 88% and 96% compliance its LER is 0.006–0.026 below that of the margin frontier at equal compliance (for example 1.385 against 1.403 at 94%), and at the extremes the two coincide; the comparison favours the margin slightly, because the margins were not cross-fitted. *Outside the ensemble.* When the true response is one of four fixed responses outside the ensemble, no calibrated rule is safe: conformal margins and the network reach 32–42%, a margin of 0.96 reaches 72% at a cost of about 0.2 in LER relative to the mean-response design, and the oracle reaches 88%. Wheat, rice and potato pairs are at the floor in 0–25% of cases for every rule except the margins of 0.94 and 0.96, whereas soybean pairs meet it in 94–100%, because

Table 3: Design rules for the density under shade-response uncertainty (ensemble E2, phenology rule, leave-one-split-out, 76 pairs): share of pairs (%) with mean retention ≥ 0.9 and mean LER when the true response is the held-out member (inside) or one of four fixed responses (outside the ensemble); the third column gives the range over crops of the inside share. Margins and the network are fitted on two splits and evaluated on the third; the fixed margins are not fitted.

	Inside the ensemble			Outside	
Rule	Pairs at floor	LER	By crop	Pairs at floor	LER
Oracle (design under the true response)	87	1.488	–	88	1.287
Design under the mean response	71	1.502	57–79	28	1.444
Fixed margin 0.92	89	1.436	81–99	34	1.386
Fixed margin 0.94	97	1.357	91–100	54	1.315
Fixed margin 0.96	99	1.265	97–100	72	1.233
Conformal margin, target 90%	92	1.419	85–99	36	1.372
Conformal margin, target 85%	88	1.441	81–97	34	1.390
Conformal margin, target 80%	84	1.456	79–96	32	1.403
Per-crop conformal margin, target 90%	93	1.407	91–94	37	1.362
Per-crop conformal margin, target 85%	87	1.425	84–89	33	1.377
Per-crop conformal margin, target 80%	82	1.456	82–83	32	1.403
Learned design network, $\lambda = 0.8$	90	1.417	–	35	1.365
Learned design network, $\lambda = 1.0$	94	1.385	–	37	1.333
Learned design network, $\lambda = 2.0$	97	1.342	–	42	1.294

the ensemble already contains steep soybean responses (Supplement). The guarantees hold only within the range of responses that the ensemble spans.

3.5. Economics

All figures follow from assumed parameters (Supplementary Table S9) and are a sensitivity analysis, not a forecast. The economics are dominated by the installed capacity (annuity and operating cost of 11–32 kUSD $\mathrm{ha}^{-1}\,\mathrm{yr}^{-1}$) and not by the crop (revenue lost 0.3 kUSD), so a method is worth what it earns per installed watt (Table 4). With floor-designed densities, static arrays break even with the open field at 59 USD MWh^{-1} (95% interval 56–61), whereas the light-sharing methods lose money at 60 (by 3 to 10 kUSD) and break even at 70 (stress rule), 73 (SALS, 69–76; CMA-ES window, 70–77), 77 (grid-tuned window), 80 (written rule) and 92 (seasonal sharing). At 90 USD MWh^{-1} static arrays (6.3 kUSD) are better than the written rule (4.0), close to the CMA-ES window (7.3) and worse than SALS (7.6); the difference between SALS and static arrays is +1.3 (95% interval −0.04 to 2.7)

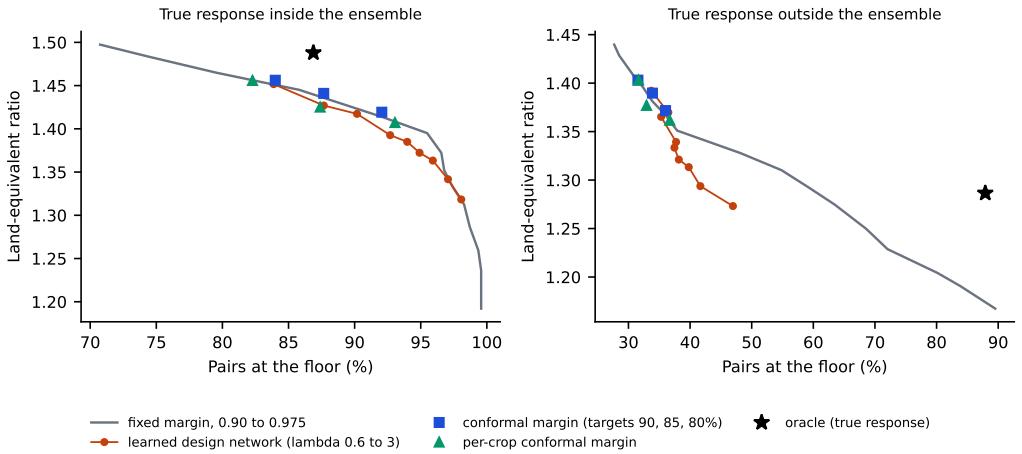


Figure 6: Land-equivalent ratio against the share of pairs at the floor for fixed margins, conformal margins (global and per crop), the learned design network (at several penalties λ) and the oracle, when the true response is a held-out member of the ensemble (left) or a fixed response outside it (right).

and the one between SALS and the CMA-ES window 0.3 (−0.1 to 0.8), neither distinguishable from zero. If each site chooses the density that maximises its historical net value, SALS overtakes static arrays at about 75 USD MWh^{-1} and the CMA-ES window at about 78. A conventional plant that replaces the crop breaks even at 48 (46–50) and is more profitable than every agrivoltaic option above that price; it overtakes SALS above about 35 and static arrays above about 46. These plant results rest on an assumed capex of 0.75 USD Wp^{-1} against 1.0 for the elevated agrivoltaic structure, consistent with a levelised cost of electricity that is 38% higher for agrophotovoltaics in a techno-economic study (Schindele et al., 2020); with equal capex the plant breaks even at about 63 and overtakes SALS above about 58 and static arrays above about 64.

3.6. Warming, regions and global potential

Under +3 °C the open-field production of the held-out sites falls by 23% for maize and 18% for rice, is nearly unchanged for soybean, and rises for wheat (3%) and potato (10%). Agrivoltaic production with light sharing follows the open field at about 90% of its level and inherits the same impacts; in this model agrivoltaics does not protect staple production against warming. The LER of light-sharing systems, which is relative to the open field of the

Table 4: Illustrative annual economics per hectare (76 crop–site pairs, three splits, main shade response, baseline climate; parameters in Table S9). Net value is relative to the open field (crop costs unchanged) in $\mathrm{kUSD\,ha^{-1}\,yr^{-1}}$ at an electricity price of $90\,\mathrm{USD\,MWh^{-1}}$ (other prices in the Supplement); break-even is the price at which the net value is zero. The conventional plant replaces the crop.

Method	E (MWh)	Capex annuity + O&M	Crop loss	Net at 90	Break-even (USD/MWh)
AV static	200	11.5	0.27	6.3	59
Seasonal sharing	326	29.6	0.31	-0.5	92
Stress rule	336	23.2	0.30	6.8	70
Phenology rule (written)	382	30.1	0.30	4.0	80
Grid-tuned window	415	31.6	0.31	5.5	77
CMA-ES optimised window	428	31.0	0.30	7.3	73
SALS	438	31.6	0.31	7.6	73
Conventional PV plant	1306	58.7	3.60	55.2	48

same climate, rises slightly with warming (SALS 1.270 to 1.297) because the floor allows slightly denser arrays. Scaled to the physical area of the five crops, agrivoltaics on 5% of the world's staple cropland would supply about $14\,\mathrm{PWh\,yr^{-1}}$ at the yield floor, a scaling convention without an interval, which needs about 10.6 TWp of modules at a capacity factor of 15.5%, or about 5.6 times the global PV capacity of 2024 (IRENA, 2025); the figure is a technical potential, not a projection, and about half of it comes from maize and soybean, the crops with the least certain response. Ranking sites by electricity per hectare, the best 2% of the cropland would supply about $20\,\mathrm{PWh\,yr^{-1}}$ and the best 4.7% about 40; this is not a siting scenario and excludes grid, curtailment and land access. The best sites are mostly rainfed maize and soybean sites in the Americas and in southern and eastern Africa, where compliance is lowest.

4. Discussion

4.1. What the results establish

Sharing light with the crop is the main lever on the electricity that tracker-based agrivoltaic arrays can produce under a yield floor: with static trackers the floor limits arrays to about 6% ground coverage (LER 1.07), and any light-sharing control allows 2.1 to 2.9 times the density (LER 1.18–1.24 for written rules). The best simple rule follows crop phenology, needs only the crop's thermal time, which is observable on the farm, and is insensitive to forecast errors, whereas a rule that reacts to heat and drought stress is worse in every climate. The early hypothesis that stress-aware control would be a

main source of benefit under warming was not supported: a learned controller without stress inputs performs as well as one with them, and agrivoltaics does not protect staple production against warming in the model, because the systems produce about 90% of the open-field yield in every climate and follow the same decline in maize and rice. These results hold for the proportional-growth shade response of the main analysis and for the alternative responses we tested (Supplement), but the gains for maize and soybean, which supply about half of the upscaled electricity, are the least certain.

4.2. What learning adds

We tested four ways in which learning could matter, and each gives a small or null return. *Learning the shade response from data* is useful mainly as a measurement of how little can be learned: a hierarchical model fitted to 428 observations predicts a held-out study of the four staple crop types to 0.22 in relative yield, no better than proportional loss, and its gain over proportional loss comes from crop types that the simulator does not represent. The response of the staple crops is a distribution with a spread of about 20 percentage points between studies and not a curve. *Calibration through the differentiable simulator* produced an ensemble of plausible responses that fits the trials and the curves for cereals and potato but not those of maize, and it quantifies the design risk. *Control* gains little: a network of 5441 weights trained through whole seasons exceeds the written rule by 0.044 LER, but a window optimised by a derivative-free search (five parameters, 200 simulator runs) is only 0.007 LER behind it, and at matched retention the difference is not distinguishable from zero; we did not test whether such a search would work on the network itself. A reader who needs a simple, auditable controller can use the window and obtain about 83% of the gain. *Learning the design margin* gave a guarantee but no better frontier: conformal calibration attains a stated compliance within the ensemble, with margins that can be set per crop, and a neural design policy does no better than a simple margin, and neither is safe outside the ensemble. The honest conclusion for the use of artificial intelligence here is that differentiable simulation makes calibration, control and design tractable, and that the data, not the learner, limit the result: the uncertainty of the crop response that enters the design costs more compliance than any controller gains.

4.3. Implications for agricultural systems and decisions

Holding the mean retention at 90% does not hold it in each season or at each site. About 30% of seasons with light-sharing control fall short of the floor on the main split, the shortfall is mostly small (2.7% of SALS seasons are below 0.8 of the open-field yield), and production-weighted retention is below 0.9 for soybean and maize and in several regions. A floor enforced per site would therefore need a crop- and site-specific design step, and a margin that is calibrated rather than chosen by hand. Compliance is sensitive to the response assumed in the design: a density chosen under the mean response leaves 71% of pairs at the floor when another plausible response holds, a margin or a conformal calibration repairs this inside the ensemble, and none of them protects against responses outside it, notably for cereals and tubers when the ensemble is anchored on mild responses. Because all controllers are designed to the same mean retention, their compliance is close by construction, so the choice of controller and the choice of the design belief are different decisions. Economically, light sharing pays only at high electricity prices (break-even 70–92 $\mathrm{USD\,MWh^{-1}}$ against 59 for static arrays and 48 for a conventional plant under the assumed costs), so a policy that wants dual use of farmland has to price the electricity, the land-use rule or the food that the model does not value. The risk to the farmer is mainly one of compliance with the floor and of the contract, since the crop revenue at stake (about 0.3 $\mathrm{kUSD\,ha^{-1}\,yr^{-1}}$) is small against the electricity revenue, and it concentrates where the energy gain is largest, in rainfed maize and soybean areas, where the shade response is least certain.

4.4. Limitations

All results come from a simulator. The PV model agrees with PVGIS at low density and with pvlib to within 3% of plane-of-array irradiance up to a ground coverage of 0.5, but it underestimates the shading loss of dense arrays by 1.5 to 2.5 points, which changes the LER by at most 0.008 and no ranking, and no measured array output at these densities was used. The shade response was learned from one meta-analysis and compared with four field trials; for maize the data and the simulator disagree (0.42 against 0.75 at 40% shading), the harvest-index sensitivities are assumptions, and the sensitivity analyses use subsamples of pairs. The floor of 0.9 is a modelling convention and not a regulatory threshold (DIN SPEC 91434 uses 66%). Canopy cooling is one coefficient applied to a heat-stress function calibrated on air temperature; SIMPLE has a fixed harvest index and no emergence,

early canopy closure, weeds or machinery effects; the climate scenarios are deltas that isolate the thermal signal; and the layouts are single-axis trackers over flat fields, with no east–west, vertical or fixed-tilt arrays. The economic analysis uses assumed parameters and a plant cheaper per watt than the agrivoltaic structure, and omits land rent, degradation, extra structure cost, curtailment and subsidies. The conformal and learned design results come from five ensemble members and 76 pairs, with split-level deviations of up to three points from the stated compliance, and the controller comparisons use one network per training seed. The regional and global figures are indications and a scaling convention without intervals. Future work should validate the shade response under trackers for maize and legumes, extend the crop model to grain-number formation and canopy energy balance, add costs and grid constraints, and pursue controllers and designs that guarantee the floor per site and per season.

5. Conclusions

Light sharing, the daily choice between maximum electricity and letting light through to the crop, is the main lever (by rule, not by learning) on the electricity of tracker-based agrivoltaics at a given yield-retention floor. Evaluated on held-out crop–site pairs, with the density of each site chosen from its own history, light-sharing rules allowed 2.1 to 2.9 times the module density of static arrays at a mean retention of 90% and raised the land-equivalent ratio from 1.07 to 1.18–1.24. A neural controller trained through a differentiable simulator exceeded the written phenology rule by 0.044 LER but a window optimised by CMA-ES by only 0.007, and by an amount not distinguishable from zero at matched retention; ensemble training and a biomass signal did not help.

The crop response to shade is the least certain input. A model fitted to 428 observations predicts a new study to about 0.22 in relative yield, no better than proportional loss for the staple crop types, and the simulator is milder than the data for maize. A density chosen under the mean response left about 70% of pairs at the floor when another plausible response held, against 87% for an oracle design. Conformal calibration attains a stated compliance inside the ensemble and a learned design network does no better than a simple margin; no rule was safe outside the ensemble.

With illustrative costs, light sharing breaks even with the open field at 70 to 92 USD MWh^{-1} at floor-designed densities (73 for SALS, 59 for static

arrays), the difference between SALS and static arrays at 90 USD MWh^{-1} is not distinguishable from zero, and a conventional plant replacing the crop is more profitable above 48 (about 64 at equal capex). The electricity potential of 5% of staple cropland (about 14 $\mathrm{PWh\,yr}^{-1}$, a scaling convention without an interval) requires about 10 TWp of modules. For agricultural decision-making, the practical message is to treat the crop response as a distribution, to calibrate the design margin per crop instead of choosing it by hand, and to expect that no margin protects against responses outside the range considered.

CRediT authorship contribution statement

Quang-Vinh Dang: Conceptualization, Methodology, Software, Formal analysis, Investigation, Data curation, Visualization, Writing – original draft, Writing – review & editing.

Declaration of competing interest

The author has no known competing financial interests or personal relationships that could have appeared to influence the work reported in this paper.

Data and code availability

All data used are public: SPAM 2010 v2r0 harvested areas (Yu et al., 2020), the GGCMI Phase 3 crop calendar (Jägermeyr et al., 2021), NASA POWER daily weather (Sparks, 2018) the SIMPLE crop parameters (Zhao et al., 2019) and the shade-response meta-analysis data of Laub et al. (2022) (Zenodo 10.5281/zenodo.5716091, CC BY 4.0, copied into the repository). The code of the simulator, of SALS and of all experiments, together with the site list, is available from the author's public repository (`https://github.com/vinhqdang/Artificial-Intelligence-in-Agriculture`); a versioned archive with a DOI will be deposited at acceptance.

Funding

This research did not receive any specific grant from funding agencies in the public, commercial, or not-for-profit sectors.

References

Adeh, E.H., Good, S.P., Calaf, M., Higgins, C.W., 2019. Solar pv power potential is greatest over croplands. Scientific Reports 9, 11442. doi:10.1038/s41598-019-47803-3.

Allen, R.G., Pereira, L.S., Raes, D., Smith, M., 1998. Crop evapotranspiration: Guidelines for computing crop water requirements. FAO Irrigation and Drainage Paper 56. Food and Agriculture Organization of the United Nations. Rome.

Amaducci, S., Yin, X., Colauzzi, M., 2018. Agrivoltaic systems to optimise land use for electric energy production. Applied Energy 220, 545–561. doi:10.1016/j.apenergy.2018.03.081.

Angelopoulos, A.N., Bates, S., Fisch, A., Lei, L., Schuster, T., 2024. Conformal risk control, in: International Conference on Learning Representations.

DIN, 2021. DIN SPEC 91434:2021-05: Agri-photovoltaic systems – requirements for primary agricultural use. Beuth Verlag, Berlin.

Dinesh, H., Pearce, J.M., 2016. The potential of agrivoltaic systems. Renewable and Sustainable Energy Reviews 54, 299–308. doi:10.1016/j.rser.2015.10.024.

Dupraz, C., Marrou, H., Talbot, G., Dufour, L., Nogier, A., Ferard, Y., 2011. Combining solar photovoltaic panels and food crops for optimising land use: Towards new agrivoltaic schemes. Renewable Energy 36, 2725–2732. doi:10.1016/j.renene.2011.03.005.

Gautron, R., Maillard, O.A., Preux, P., Corbeels, M., Sabbadin, R., 2022. Reinforcement learning for crop management support: Review, prospects and challenges. Computers and Electronics in Agriculture 200, 107182. doi:10.1016/j.compag.2022.107182.

Gonocruz, R.A., Nakamura, R., Yoshino, K., Homma, M., Doi, T., Yoshida, Y., Tani, A., 2021. Analysis of the rice yield under an agrivoltaic system: A case study in japan. Environments 8, 65. doi:10.3390/environments8070065.

Hansen, N., Ostermeier, A., 2001. Completely derandomized self-adaptation in evolution strategies. Evolutionary Computation 9, 159–195. doi:10.1162/106365601750190398.

Hassanpour Adeh, E., Selker, J.S., Higgins, C.W., 2018. Remarkable agrivoltaic influence on soil moisture, micrometeorology and water-use efficiency. PLOS ONE 13, e0203256. doi:10.1371/journal.pone.0203256.

Holmgren, W.F., Hansen, C.W., Mikofski, M.A., 2018. pvlib python: a python package for modeling solar energy systems. Journal of Open Source Software 3, 884. doi:10.21105/joss.00884.

IPCC, 2021. Climate Change 2021: The Physical Science Basis. Contribution of Working Group I to the Sixth Assessment Report of the Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change. Cambridge University Press, Cambridge. doi:10.1017/9781009157896.

IRENA, 2025. Renewable Capacity Statistics 2025. Technical Report. International Renewable Energy Agency. Abu Dhabi.

Jägermeyr, J., Müller, C., Ruane, A.C., Elliott, J., Balkovic, J., Castillo, O., Faye, B., Foster, I., Folberth, C., Franke, J.A., Fuchs, K., Guarin, J.R., Heinke, J., Hoogenboom, G., Iizumi, T., Jain, A.K., Kelly, D., Khabarov, N., Lange, S., Lin, T.S., Liu, W., Mialyk, O., Minoli, S., Moyer, E.J., Okada, M., Phillips, M., Porter, C., Rabin, S.S., Scheer, C., Schneider, J.M., Schyns, J.F., Skalsky, R., Smerald, A., Stella, T., Stephens, H., Webber, H., Zabel, F., Rosenzweig, C., 2021. Climate impacts on global agriculture emerge earlier in new generation of climate and crop models. Nature Food 2, 873–885. doi:10.1038/s43016-021-00400-y.

Laub, M., Pataczek, L., Feuerbacher, A., Zikeli, S., Högy, P., 2022. Contrasting yield responses at varying levels of shade suggest different suitability of crops for dual land-use systems: a meta-analysis. Agronomy for Sustainable Development 42, 51. doi:10.1007/s13593-022-00783-7.

Lorenzo, E., Narvarte, L., Muñoz, J., 2011. Tracking and back-tracking. Progress in Photovoltaics: Research and Applications 19, 747–753. doi:10.1002/pip.1085.

Marchau, V.A.W.J., Walker, W.E., Bloemen, P.J.T.M., Popper, S.W. (Eds.), 2019. Decision Making under Deep Uncertainty: From Theory to Practice. Springer. doi:10.1007/978-3-030-05252-2.

Marion, W.F., Dobos, A.P., 2013. Rotation angle for the optimum tracking of one-axis trackers. Technical Report NREL/TP-6A20-58891. National Renewable Energy Laboratory. doi:10.2172/1089596.

Marrou, H., Guilioni, L., Dufour, L., Dupraz, C., Wery, J., 2013. Microclimate under agrivoltaic systems: Is crop growth rate affected in the partial shade of solar panels? Agricultural and Forest Meteorology 177, 117–132. doi:10.1016/j.agrformet.2013.04.012.

Paszke, A., Gross, S., Massa, F., Lerer, A., Bradbury, J., Chanan, G., Killeen, T., Lin, Z., Gimelshein, N., Antiga, L., et al., 2019. PyTorch: An imperative style, high-performance deep learning library, in: Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems, pp. 8024–8035.

Ramos-Fuentes, I.A., Elamri, Y., Cheviron, B., Dejean, C., Belaud, G., Fumey, D., 2023. Effects of shade and deficit irrigation on maize growth and development in fixed and dynamic agrivoltaic systems. Agricultural Water Management 280, 108187. doi:10.1016/j.agwat.2023.108187.

Reichstein, M., Camps-Valls, G., Stevens, B., Jung, M., Denzler, J., Carvalhais, N., Prabhat, 2019. Deep learning and process understanding for data-driven Earth system science. Nature 566, 195–204. doi:10.1038/s41586-019-0912-1.

Schindele, S., Trommsdorff, M., Schlaak, A., Obergfell, T., Bopp, G., Reise, C., Braun, C., Weselek, A., Bauerle, A., Högy, P., Goetzberger, A., Weber, E., 2020. Implementation of agrophotovoltaics: Techno-economic analysis of the price-performance ratio and its policy implications. Applied Energy 265, 114737. doi:10.1016/j.apenergy.2020.114737.

Sekiyama, T., Nagashima, A., 2019. Solar sharing for both food and clean energy production: Performance of agrivoltaic systems for corn, a typical shade-intolerant crop. Environments 6, 65. doi:10.3390/environments6060065.

Shen, C., Appling, A.P., Gentine, P., Bandai, T., Gupta, H., Tartakovsky, A., Baity-Jesi, M., Fenicia, F., Kifer, D., Li, L., Liu, X., Ren, W., Zheng, Y.,

Harman, C.J., Clark, M., Farthing, M., Feng, D., Kumar, P., Aboelyazeed, D., Rahmani, F., Song, Y., Beck, H.E., Bindas, T., Dwivedi, D., Fang, K., Höge, M., Rackauckas, C., Mohanty, B., Roy, T., Xu, C., Lawson, K., 2023. Differentiable modelling to unify machine learning and physical models for geosciences. Nature Reviews Earth & Environment 4, 552–567. doi:10.1038/s43017-023-00450-9.

Sparks, A., 2018. nasapower: A nasa power global meteorology, surface solar energy and climatology data client for r. Journal of Open Source Software 3, 1035. doi:10.21105/joss.01035.

Trommsdorff, M., Kang, J., Reise, C., Schindele, S., Bopp, G., Ehmann, A., Weselek, A., Högy, P., Obergfell, T., 2021. Combining food and energy production: Design of an agrivoltaic system applied in arable and vegetable farming in germany. Renewable and Sustainable Energy Reviews 140, 110694. doi:10.1016/j.rser.2020.110694.

Valle, B., Simonneau, T., Sourd, F., Pechier, P., Hamard, P., Frisson, T., Ryckewaert, M., Christophe, A., 2017. Increasing the total productivity of a land by combining mobile photovoltaic panels and food crops. Applied Energy 206, 1495–1507. doi:10.1016/j.apenergy.2017.09.113.

Weselek, A., Bauerle, A., Hartung, J., Zikeli, S., Lewandowski, I., Högy, P., 2021. Agrivoltaic system impacts on microclimate and yield of different crops within an organic crop rotation in a temperate climate. Agronomy for Sustainable Development 41, 59. doi:10.1007/s13593-021-00714-y.

Yu, Q., You, L., Wood-Sichra, U., Ru, Y., Joglekar, A.K.B., Fritz, S., Xiong, W., Lu, M., Wu, W., Yang, P., 2020. A cultivated planet in 2010 – part 2: The global gridded agricultural-production maps. Earth System Science Data 12, 3545–3572. doi:10.5194/essd-12-3545-2020.

Zhao, C., Liu, B., Piao, S., Wang, X., Lobell, D.B., Huang, Y., Huang, M., Yao, Y., Bassu, S., Ciais, P., Durand, J.L., Elliott, J., Ewert, F., Janssens, I.A., Li, T., Lin, E., Liu, Q., Martre, P., Müller, C., Peng, S., Peñuelas, J., Ruane, A.C., Wallach, D., Wang, T., Wu, D., Liu, Z., Zhu, Y., Zhu, Z., Asseng, S., 2017. Temperature increase reduces global yields of major crops in four independent estimates. Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences 114, 9326–9331. doi:10.1073/pnas.1701762114.

Zhao, C., Liu, B., Xiao, L., Hoogenboom, G., Boote, K.J., Kassie, B.T., Pavan, W., Shelia, V., Kim, K.S., Hernandez-Ochoa, I.M., Wallach, D., Porter, C.H., Stockle, C.O., Zhu, Y., Asseng, S., 2019. A simple crop model. European Journal of Agronomy 104, 97–106. doi:10.1016/j.eja.2019.01.009.